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Blues and Orchestral Jazz

In this chapter and the following I propose to guide the reader in somewhat more detail through the maze of orchestral and instrumental jazz styles. Unlike some other chapters, these inevitably make very little sense unless the reader also has access to gramophone records and a desire to listen to jazz seriously, and readers who have neither are advised to skip much of the next pages. My survey is necessarily very condensed and elementary, but there is a fair amount of more specialized literature available for those who want to go farther.

THE BLUES

The blues is not a style or phase of jazz, but a permanent substratum of all styles; not the whole of jazz, but its heart. No jazz player or band which cannot play it can reach the peaks of jazz achievement, and the moment when the blues ceases to be part of jazz will be the moment when jazz, as we know it, ceases to exist. There is no real disagreement on this point. The most sophisticated and advanced modernists, full of eighteenth-century classical echoes, will, like John Lewis, claim an affinity with the blues, and rightly so. The great and revolutionary Charlie Parker observed on the last day of his tormented life ‘that it was a sad thing the way many of the young guys coming up didn’t know or had forgotten their foundation—the blues’. ‘That’s the basis of jazz’, he said.¹ Ordinary jazz players merely say, again and again, unasked, apropos of nothing: ‘The blues has to be there all the time: it’s the way you feel.’ It is to jazz what the earth was to Antaeus in the Greek myth. If he lost contact with it, he lost his strength. Whenever in the blank patches of

some session a musician calls out ‘Hey, Charlie, let’s play the blues’, this contact is renewed.

So far as jazz is concerned the blues are both a mood and a feeling—not necessarily of sadness and depression, though mostly so—and a musical form or idiom—not necessarily the classic ‘twelve-bar blues’. But the blues also exists as a folk-music outside jazz and beside it, with its own evolution which runs alongside that of jazz, though not independent of it. There also it may mean two things: the general idiom of black folk-song and a specific type of secular song. When Marshall Stearns speaks of the ‘almost solid wall of blue tonality’ in Mahalia Jackson’s gospel song, he means the first. When Sonny Terry, the singer and harmonica player, says, ‘If only Mahalia would sing the blues she’d be the best of them all’ he means the second. However, since the blues is so pervasive and important a part of American black music and jazz, most musicians or jazz-lovers use the word fairly indiscriminately. There is little risk of misunderstanding.

In the most rigorous sense of the word the blues is a strict musical and poetic form. Musically it seems to have stabilized itself best as a theme of twelve bars, though earlier blues may have been shorter and ‘composed’ blues may be more elaborate, like the *St Louis Blues*, which has two distinct twelve-bar themes and a sixteen-bar one, and the *Beale Street Blues*, which has two of twelve bars and one of eight. Poetically the (twelve-bar) blues consists of something like a blank verse couplet, the first line being repeated twice as in:

*I looked down the road far as I could see
Well, I looked down the road, far as I could see
Well, a man and my woman, the blues sure had poor me.*²

The verse-line and rhythm, as one might expect, are extremely flexible, but the five main accents remain. The poetic aspects of blues couplet will be briefly discussed in Chapter 7.

The blues in its original form is essentially an ‘accompanied’ song; more precisely an antiphonal song, in the long African tradition of such ‘calls and responses’. The voice may make two statements—say of two

or two and a half bars length each in a twelve-bar blues—and a response of equal length. These might occupy, for instance, bars 2 and 3, 5 and 6, 9 and 10. The remainder is filled by instrumental ‘breaks’. In fact the accompanied blues becomes a duet between voice and instrument(s) which echo and respond to it. When singer and player are in sympathy and are good blues performers, the result can be of heartrending beauty for the lover of such things: as in Bessie Smith’s duets with Louis Armstrong (*St Louis Blues*, *Reckless Blues*), with Joe Smith, perhaps her most sensitive accompanist (*Weeping Willow Blues*), or James P. Johnson (*Backwater Blues*). Solo instrumental blues are derived from vocal ones and preserve, so far as possible, the antiphonal characteristics (e.g. the famous *Five O’Clock Blues* or *How Long*, by Jimmy Yancey). Being often played on the most unvocal instrument, the piano, this may not be obvious, but it remains true that virtually all primitive piano solos ‘are the blues, so far as melody, harmony, and length of theme are concerned’.³

There is some argument about the characteristic ‘blue scale’ and its harmony. It is probably best regarded as an adaptation of European scales to African ones, though many primitive blues and the vocal line of many classic ones are almost purely African; for it is easier to sing such things as quarter-tones than to play them on some European instruments. The simplest way to recognize the blues scale is by its use of the ‘blue notes’, the (approximately) flatted thirds and sevenths in the melody, but not the harmony, which is European. The conflict between the two produces the characteristic effects of the blues. This scale is remarkably deep rooted in American black sound. Sermons in black churches, which tend to pass insensibly from speech to chant, will normally be found to settle down on the basis of two or three notes from the blues scale—say the tonic and the ‘blue third’ above it.⁴ In the vocal blues the theme is repeated, stanza-like *ad lib*, with an infinity of variations. A fine example of this is Bessie Smith’s five-verse version of *Careless Love*. This song, which exists in innumerable versions, is not, as it happens, a native blues but an Elizabethan and later Appalachian mountain song turned into a blues by black singers, and into a most marvellous and haunting one:

*Love, oh love, oh careless love,
You go to my head like wine.*

There is no particular reason why the twelve-bar blues should be slow or sad. However, since the blues is also a mood, most characteristic secular blues are in fact slow or dragging in tempo and ‘low down’ in feeling. ‘Low down’ is a quality as difficult to define as ‘lyrical,’ but it will be recognized by anyone who has ever heard any record by Bessie Smith.

This essentially simple form has an infinity of artistic possibilities. In its vocal form it has produced not only melodies of great beauty—for instance *See See Rider*, *How Long?*, *In the Evening*, and *Trouble in Mind*—but an extraordinarily intense and sensitive expression of emotion. The blues is essentially expressionist. Technique is totally subordinated to content, and indeed determined by it. One has merely to listen to the wonderful flexibility of the blues line as sung or played by a fine artist to appreciate the way in which every slight variation in intonation, rhythm, or melody serves to express emotion with the utmost accuracy and power, like the movements of a great dancer. I do not think any form of art has ever been developed which can transform ordinary emotion, as felt by all of us, into artistically valid statements more directly and with less loss of intensity. This is perhaps a major reason why the vocal blues is one of the rare art-forms which, like dancing and acting, are perfectly adapted to women, for whom the most natural kind of art is that least separate from body, gesture, and voice. In the blues ordinary women, the sort who are generally inarticulate unless written about, painted, or filmed, have found their voice: if Carmen had spoken herself, she would not have said what Mérimée and Bizet said, but what Bessie Smith sang in *Young Woman’s Blues*:

*I’m a young woman, and I ain’t done running round.
Some people call me a hobo, some people call me a bum
Nobody knows my name, nobody knows what I’ve done.
I’m as good as any woman in your town:
I ain’t no high yaller, I’m a deep yaller brown.
I ain’t going to marry, ain’t going to settle down*

I'm going to drink good moonshine, and run these browns down.

See that long, lonesome road? Don't you know it's got to end.

And I'm a good woman, and I can get plenty men.

As Iain Lang has said of this great and terrifying singer: '*C'est Vénus toute entière à sa proie attachée*'. But how often has Venus spoken, rather than been spoken about? It is therefore not surprising that the best women blues singers utterly outclass the men, good though these often are.

At a more complex level, the blues has proved to be a uniquely suitable foundation for solo or collective improvisation in jazz; that is to say for jazz composition.

The vocal secular blues has passed through several stages of evolution.⁵ The 'country blues' seems to have emerged as a recognizable form towards the end of the nineteenth century, perhaps among travelling minstrels. It may be heard, e.g. on the records of Blind Lemon Jefferson, of Galveston, Texas (c. 1875 to c. 1930). Country blues are still emerging from folk-song: anonymous voices, distinguished only by having a special *timbre* or skill or trick, singing anybody's blues, not yet those of a recognizably unique individual. Recorded chiefly by men, the country blues has continued to be sung, though modified by the migration into the city, by the mixing styles, and lately by the demands of the jazz public. Good examples are on record by Big Bill Broonzy, Leroy Carr, Brownie McGhee, Sonny Terry, and in America by Howlin' Wolf, Lightning Hopkins, and other splendidly named bards, most of whom are more sophisticated, a little more self-conscious, and to be honest, better artist-craftsmen than their predecessors.

The 'classic blues' emerges with Ma Rainey (1885–1939). It is exclusively a woman's art, whose greatest glory is Bessie Smith (1900–37), followed by Ma Rainey herself and, a long way after, various lesser singers among whom Clara Smith, Sippie Wallace, and Bertha Hill may be mentioned. It was virtually dead by 1928. Being the song of professional music-hall stars the 'classic blues' is individualized art in the full sense. Purists, of whom jazz is full, have regretted the loss of the anonymity and impersonal grandeur of the folk-blues, which still echoes in Ma Rainey, but the gain in technique, expressiveness, and

individualism more than offset this. It also had far more complex accompaniment from the mature jazz players and bands who served these prima donnas in the 1920s.

There is no need to say much about Bessie Smith,⁶ the most impressive artist produced in any branch of jazz, for her numerous records form a sort of self-portrait. If we allow for their technical deficiencies (they were mostly cut between 1923 and 1927) they bring us all of Bessie Smith except that dense radiation of power and femininity with which she hypnotized her live audiences. 'She dominated the stage', says an old guitarist. 'You didn't turn your head when she went on. You just watched Bessie. You didn't read any newspapers in a night club when she went on. She just upset you'. She was a big, handsome, raucous, drunken, and infinitely sad woman: 'she liked to sing her blues slow; she didn't want no fast stuff'. She was that rare thing in jazz, or anywhere else, a major tragic artist, even in her moments of exultation; and nobody could exult more powerfully than Bessie singing 'Got the world in a jug, got the stopper in my hand', or 'I'm as good as any woman in your town.' She was raised in the slums of Nashville, Tennessee, and the travelling tent-shows of the South. She was alone all her life, and sang of the transitoriness of money, friends, liquor, and men with the deep and wary bitterness of somebody who knows that 'You can't trust nobody, you might as well be alone'. Lesser artists, or less percipient artists, have forgotten the penalties of the isolated, community-less life of the slum-bred entertainer in the temporary joys of his 'good times'. Not Bessie, for whom the standard refrain of the blues singer, 'You must reap just what you sow', had a constant and terrible reality. An individual rebel, bitter and undefeated, she died after a motor accident in the South. There has been nobody like her.

From the early 1930s the girls who might earlier have become blues singers, made their way as band vocalists, singing essentially a repertoire of 'ballads' or normal pop songs, in a style and with a technique which kept pace with the evolution of orchestral jazz. Ella Fitzgerald (born 1918) is the finest of the singers of this kind produced by the 1930s, and perhaps, with the older music-hall artist Ethel Waters (born 1900), the most gifted jazz singer on record; Sarah Vaughan (born 1924) is the finest

singer produced in the atmosphere of the 'modern' jazz school. The classic blues itself either dropped from sight, or developed in the 1930s into what may not unfairly be called 'cabaret' blues, which differs from the classic music-hall song as, let us say, Gracie Fields's early songs differ from Yvette Guilbert's. Incomparably the finest singer of this more sophisticated and intimate type is the magical 'Lady Day', Billie Holiday (1915–59), who is incidentally the only blues singer to have made a total success out of an art-song, the anti-lynching poem *Strange Fruit*.⁷ But among the leading black secular women singers the evolution has been strongly away from the formal blues; so much so that some of them are today incapable of singing a classic blues at all.

The post-classic blues tradition fell back into the hands of the modest 'city blues' singer, who had probably emerged from the country blues shortly after the formation of the classics; let us say in the 1920s. Mostly men, but after 1928 also some women—Bessie Jackson (a pseudonym) and the Yas Yas Girl perhaps deserve mention—they developed the blues mainly as a song of urban low-life. Musically perhaps the main development was the speeding-up of the blues, which increasingly adopted the insistent 'jump' beat, which has since made its fortune in pop music. The best performers in this genre were and are men, often very inadequately known on British records, such as Sonny Boy Williamson, who sang to his mouth-organ, and the Kansas City 'blues shouters' who were the first group of male blues singers to be integrated into orchestral jazz; Joe Turner and James Rushing, the vocalist of Count Basie's band. Here again the evolution has been away from the traditional country blues—partly by the absorption of pop song influences, partly by a crossing with the rhythmic excitement of urban black church music.

Black religious song differs from the secular blues in having remained primarily collective. The gospel choir and the gospel group to this day provide far more black church music than the individual gospel singer. The evolution of this music has not been studied anything like as fully as that of secular jazz or blues, largely because it has until recently been much less fully recorded. Consequently it is at present impossible to summarize it, however sketchily, in any adequate fashion. However, a few general points may be noted.

The first is that religion, a notoriously conservative institution, preserves archaic and sometimes African features in its song much more clearly than all but the most obscure rural work-songs, field-hollers, and other rapidly vanishing precursors of jazz. Secondly, it does so in the modern urban environment. The basis of modern gospel music lies in the swelling big city ghettos, in which the church—ranging from the bare storefront tabernacle to the highly capitalized temple of the middle class—provides the most important single community centre for the immigrant. Since the thirties, and very markedly in the fifties, this vast and growing market has led to a commercialization of religious music, religion being perhaps the largest single business under black control. The professional or semi-professional gospel group, singing for churches and revival meetings other than its own, the local radio station for blacks with its unbroken programme of revival meetings, gospel song, and rhythm-and-blues, are familiar to any student of the city black today. Thirdly, this commercialization has led to a musical modification of gospel song. My impression—and in the present state of our knowledge one must be tentative—is that it has tended to produce, at one end the increasingly Europeanized large choir, at the other the group exploiting the most obvious tricks for arousing revivalist hysteria, such as heavily accented and endless rhythmic repetition and hot-gospelling call-and-response patterns.

Choral gospel song has probably been little influenced by secular jazz, but its own influence has been profound, notably on the big swing band. Moreover, in the fifties the commercialized gospel technique was universally adopted for secular purposes as rock-and-roll. The immense vogue of church song also helped, towards the end of the fifties, to carry the heritage of the blues back into the mainstream of modern jazz, and among a generation of musicians who had been brought up to despise it as old-fashioned and primitive, and who were almost totally ignorant of the vocal blues, as of most pre-modern jazz.

Some itinerant individual gospel singers similar to the secular bluesmen had long existed. One of them, Blind Willie Johnson, gained a short-lived popularity during the slump, when hunger and despair echoed his wild calls to God.⁸ But in the main the solo gospel singer seems to have

been gradually individualized out of the complex mixture of choral song and private improvisation in the traditional black service, where originally the only fully personal voice was that of the preacher, slipping insensibly from rhythmic prose into chanting. The most prominent of these singers are women, who began to record in quantity only in the 1930s. By far the finest of them is Mahalia Jackson (born 1911), a great artist who combines a superb voice with marvellous emotion, and an unerring sense of the construction of a solo.

Formally the gospel song is often remote from the twelve-bar blues; but the good gospel singers are nevertheless as blue as any secular singer, and the best of them can recreate the extraordinary emotional expressiveness of the classic blues, even though the emotion expressed is joy in salvation, or fervour of faith, rather than secular grief. As a member of the Sanctified Church in Mount Vernon is supposed to have said: 'Mahalia, she add more flowers and feathers than anybody, and they all is exactly right.' That is the blues. But it may well be that the tendency of the gospel song has been towards a much more baroque style than is to be found in the spare classicism of the best secular blues.

The instrumental blues can be best discussed under the headings of jazz orchestral and instrumental styles.

THE STYLES OF JAZZ

I have already given a brief list and sketch of the chief 'styles' of jazz in Chapter 3. In the remainder of this chapter and the next I shall try to discuss these styles in greater detail. Like all art-historians, jazz experts are naturally much given to arguing about where one 'style' or 'school' ends and another begins, and the sub-divisions I have used are open to many such arguments, in which neither the reader nor the author need join. The only point to bear in mind is that the appearance of a new style does not mean the disappearance of the old. Today, for instance, all the styles discussed below are played by someone or other, except perhaps 'ragtime' and the 1920s East Coast styles. Some of them have, however, ceased to develop.

‘Ragtime’⁹ was essentially a pianistic rather than an orchestral style which, being a ‘written’ music and a way of playing ordinary music—almost any piece can be ‘ragged’—gradually grew away from the jazz traditions. Its fundamental musical characteristic is syncopation, on which various other rhythmic devices are superimposed. The form of its compositions is, as Stearns suggests, a sort of rondo deriving from minuets, scherzos, and indeed marches. However, ragtime was adapted for the jazz band in the ancient period, notably by the extraordinarily talented and raffish pianist, arranger, and band leader Ferdinand Jelly-Roll Morton (1885–1941), in whose Red Hot Peppers records of the middle 1920s this adaptation may be heard to perfection. Rags or rag-flavoured numbers also became part of the staple repertoire of New Orleans jazz, or more exactly, of the white Dixieland music derived from it, and can still be heard in any ‘traditionalist’ jazz band: e.g. *Maple Leaf Rag*, *Eccentric*, *That’s a Plenty*, or *Muskrat Ramble*, *Original Dixieland One Step*, and *Ostrich Walk*.

The earliest style of ‘ancient’ jazz was that of *New Orleans*,¹⁰ whose origins in military band-music are still evident. Its instrumentation normally consisted of cornet (from the mid twenties also trumpet), clarinet, trombone, tuba (later bass), and snares and bass drums. The banjo (later guitar) was added subsequently, as was the piano, which obviously had no place on the carts or in the hands of the perambulating musicians. It was a solo instrument for ragtime or blues. The saxophone never had a place in New Orleans music. The instrumental technique combines the African vocalizing of the uptown blacks with the orthodox French style of the Creole, especially obvious in the woodwind: thus Johnny Dodds plays technically mediocre, but wonderfully blue and vocalized clarinet, while Bigard or Simeon play the liquid ‘Creole clarinet’. The repertoire, which even the gloomiest jazz haters admit to be jolly and tuneful, was again largely derived from European dances and marches, with the French influence dominant and a marked ‘Spanish tinge’ owing to the proximity of the Caribbean. The actual derivations have in many instances been established, e.g. for *Tiger Rag*, which comes from a quadrille. Though New Orleans knew the blues, it seems never to have integrated it as fully into its jazz as the Kansas City players or Duke

Ellington did later; perhaps because of the strength of the Creoles and their dominant, and quite 'unblue' musical tradition. The blues in New Orleans was regarded mainly as whorehouse music. Not until after 1914 or so was a link between blues and instrumental jazz firmly forged. As for the country blues, its absorption into the New Orleans tradition is the product or the invention of the intellectual jazz fans of the 1940s. When Leadbelly, the country minstrel, visited the city he hated it, and it ostracized him.¹¹

The chief vocal characteristic of New Orleans jazz was a three-part vocal polyphony. The cornet carried the main melody and the band, the clarinet, with its capacity to make itself heard over a mass of noise, filled in its own melody rather more elaborately between the lead notes and answered them, the trombone set up a brass counterpoint to the cornet. The rhythm section laid down a rock-firm beat, normally accenting two of the four beats to the bar, but initially with relatively little syncopation or rhythmic subtlety. The melodic and rhythmic complexity of the music emerged from the interplay of all the instruments, which normally improvised collectively, with not much scope for long individual instrumental breaks or solos. Later this tended to develop into a three-part musical form: an opening section, in which the instruments, led by the cornet, played together, a middle section, in which the individual players could show their paces in solos or duets, and a final section in which everybody once again went to town: one of the most exhilarating sounds in jazz. The former style is illustrated by the (rather late) first recordings of black New Orleans jazz in the early 1920s from King Oliver's band, the latter by many of the ravishing records of Louis Armstrong's Hot Five.^{*}

The black New Orleans style was adopted by white bands from the city, but though these played it less movingly, they added little to it (Dixieland style). In the 1920s, under the influence of the changed social and musical environment of the North, the style evolved towards greater instrumental and rhythmical finesse, and greater individualism. This evolution may be profitably traced in the records of Louis Armstrong who, according to the purists of the style, had ceased to play it by 1928. The only interesting experiments in composed and rehearsed New

Orleans ragtime jazz also occurred in this period, under Jelly-Roll Morton.¹² On the whole, however, the style as a style was unadaptable. Its only offshoot was the Mid-Western white Chicago Style, developed by young players who deliberately copied the New Orleans musicians.

The Chicago style¹³ differs from New Orleans in several important ways. It introduces, though only tentatively, the saxophones into New Orleans polyphony, drops the trombone and—another absorption of ‘pop music’ influences—it adopted the pop song as the basis of the jazz repertoire: most of the classic Chicago records are ‘hot’ versions of current song-hits, *Liza*, *Sugar*, *I’ve Found a New Baby*, etc. However, the problem of how to use pop tunes as an adequate foundation for jazz was not really solved until later. Chicago jazz is also much more individualized. Chicago is the individual players, Bix, Teschemacher, Tough, Spanier, Floyd O’Brien, much more than anything else. That is one reason why, as Berendt has acutely observed, there is no big or small band to represent this style, as King Oliver or the Hot Five represent late New Orleans. (The other is economic.) There are only the individuals, playing together in casually changing combinations. Lastly, though it is difficult to put a finger on this, there is in the best Chicago records a peculiar and distinctive atmosphere, which can best be described as ‘not relaxed’, or ‘ill at ease’. The metaphors which spring to mind for records like the Chicago Rhythm Kings’ *I’ve Found a New Baby* or *There’ll Be Some Changes Made* are the literary ones of the Scott Fitzgerald and Hemingway era; what Wilder Hobson calls the ‘hardboiled eloquence’ of a Chicago blues, like *Home Cookin’*, is the Hemingway prose-style translated into jazz. But in the last analysis Chicago was much less a single style, than a place where ‘white boy met horn’. Chicago music ranges all the way from performances which are virtually white New Orleans or white blues, to performances which, like those of Bix and Teschemacher, are quite original white developments.

The white ‘Eastern’ style of the middle and late 1920s is rarely called by this name, but the records made by Eastern-based pick-up bands like Red Nichols and His Five Pennies, Miff Mole and His Little Molars, the Venuti-Lang Blue Four and others, were so influential in their day, and have so consistent a character, that they deserve a separate label. Their

origins were in ragtime and Dixieland music rather than in the main New Orleans tradition though they came into contact with this at second hand through Chicago and Western migrants to New York in the late twenties. They were a white school derived from white players, but unquestionably an 'ancient' one, for they flourished in the twenties and as yet made no attempt to play hot jazz in anything except the characteristic small combination. However, several members of the group became leaders of large 'swing' orchestras in the thirties: the Dorseys, Glenn Miller, Benny Goodman, originally a Chicagoan. The white Eastern style is a sort of chamber-music jazz, a line which seems rather suited to white musicians, and of which the Nichols groups, the Blue Four, and the Bix-Trumbauer records are good examples. There is elegance and polish, but almost no blues feeling. Orthodox influences are marked, for instance in the instrumental smoothness. the instrumentation, though originally traditional (as in the original Memphis Five: trumpet, trombone, clarinet, piano, drums), is also eclectically derived from orthodox and light pop music. The violin, the guitar, saxophones, including freak instruments like the bass sax (A. Rollini), are normal. In fact the nearest thing to the Easterners of the twenties is found in the small white 'cool' combinations of the 1950s, though these approach orthodox light music *via* serious classical ambitions from hot jazz, rather than emerging a little way out of it through the influence of hot jazz.

Like the Napoleon, Nichols, Mole, Venuti-Lang combinations which produced a deal of tasteful and pleasant music in their time, the modern groups of this kind enjoy a grossly inflated reputation today (1958). The Easterners are at present equally grossly underrated in jazz circles. Their most interesting achievements were in instrumental technique, and it is significant that the smooth, light, well-bred tones of their instruments have been influential among modern 'cool' players, whose ancestor, the saxophonist Lester Young, claims to have imitated the leading white player Trumbauer.¹⁴ It is arguable that, had they continued to evolve, the Easterners and some of the Chicagoans might have 'been playing music much like bebop',¹⁵ in which case they would occupy an important place in jazz evolution. At all events the claim of white jazz to have made really original contributions to the music must still rest mainly on

the Eastern and Chicago traditions. In fact, however, both led into temporary blind alleys.

Though 'middle period' jazz belongs to the 1930s, certain developments of the twenties must be considered with it, for it is essentially the adaptation of jazz to the large band. By orthodox standards this is still not very large—fourteen or fifteen players, as against the seven or eight of New Orleans. A typical line-up is that of Duke Ellington's Orchestra in the early thirties: three trumpets, three trombones, four reeds, piano, bass, guitar, drums. This is still the basic pattern of the large band, allowing for variations or the addition of the occasional odd instrument. It will be obvious that the systematic use of the saxes and the enlargement of the band entailed fundamental musical changes, if only because it is impossible to have old-style collective polyphony, improvised or not, with ten melody instruments. As Borneman has pointed out, beyond four melodic lines this becomes unmanageable. In a word, the rise of the large band poses problems of instrumental style and of arrangement and composition.

Since these were not solved in any universal way, it is difficult to fit the big bands into styles and schools. Fletcher Henderson (1898–1952),¹⁶ the pioneer of the big band, began with a black pop group which he turned increasingly toward jazz by importing suitable musicians and drawing on the New Orleans repertoire. The hot quality of his players imposed jazz even on his arrangements which had, to begin with, been modelled on the ordinary 'sweet' bands such as Paul Whiteman's. His talented arranger Don Redman (who later became the brain behind such large black bands as McKinney's Cotton Pickers) evolved what was later to be called the 'swing' formula, which consists, essentially, of scored ensemble passages for all the horns, and alternating the various melodic groups—brass and reeds, trumpets, trombones, and saxes—building up an antiphonal rhythmic background, intermitted, when dramatically desirable, for the solo players. It is, as it were, the translation of the African and gospel-song antiphony into terms of the band sections.[‡] Most of these early arrangements were awkward and sound dated, like a farmer in his first dinner jacket. The quality of the soloists and the swing and vigour of the ensemble passages give what permanent interest they have

to bands like McKinney's, Luis Russell's, Claude Hopkins's, or the Blue Rhythm Band. Smaller combinations drawn from the same bands were more successful; for instance the admirable Chocolate Dandies. The practice of making up temporary sub-units from the members of large bands has since become common. Duke Ellington has done so extensively.

Of the early big bands only one achieved more than this, Duke Ellington's from 1926.¹⁷ It has about the same sort of relation to the rest of its competitors as Shakespeare had to the rest of the Elizabethan dramatists—*toutes proportions gardées*—and cannot therefore be fitted into any schools or measured by other musicians' standards. Ellington (born 1899), who is the most important talent produced in jazz so far, triumphantly, and at the first attempt, solved the triple problem of big band jazz: the composition of a jazz repertoire, the problem of jazz orchestration, and (by a judicious selection of players) the problem of the instrumental styles. Admittedly he did so in an extremely individual manner, beyond the reach of others who possessed neither his many talents nor his unique instrument, a permanent large band. Highly sophisticated though all his achievements are, they are almost invariably direct deductions from the fundamental principles of the original, popular, spontaneous, and improvised jazz.

Ellington plays mainly his own compositions (which are naturally the result of collaboration between him and his musicians), but he has also brilliantly adapted the standard forms to his own ends. He has given the blues orchestral form by basing himself on blues harmonies, developing blues melody, and translating its antiphonies into terms of the band. The improvising musician retains his old freedom within a framework of 'composed' jazz, even when deprived of the chance of a straightforward break or cadenza. Both the construction of Ellington's pieces and the lines written, or left free, for his soloists are primarily based on the blues antiphony, so that his compositions often tend towards the duet or the miniature concerto, and the solos of his players more often to the brief 'answering' improvisations of the blues accompanist than to the long choruses of the freely improvising player. As for the pop ballad, he has 'dropped the melodic line, which was generally meaningless, and

developed (its) diatonic chromatic harmonies',¹⁸ which, from the point of view of the jazz tradition, were new and interesting. Though Ellington's music looks logically forward from old-fashioned jazz towards some sort of art-music, he has not attempted to introduce any of the intellectual architecture of classical music, as some modern jazz composers have done. His own preoccupation has been with the blending of orchestral colours and the expression of moods, to both of which the old jazz lent itself easily. Among classical musicians he therefore found composers like Debussy, Delius, or Ravel most useful, though they seem to have influenced him indirectly rather than at first hand. Ellington compositions are essentially—if we must use orthodox analogies—romantic rather than classical. If anything, they tend to paint small impressionist pictures which grow into suites (*Creole Rhapsody*, *Black, Brown and Beige*).

To be frank, his success as an artist is probably less than as an innovator. (How much of this is due to the immense difficulties of a man building a serious art-music out of, and in, commercial mass entertainment, and virtually starting alone and from scratch, is a matter of debate.) Though no composer or band has maintained a more constantly high level of musical intelligence and achievement, and though his plateaux—1929–33, 1939–41—are very elevated indeed, few of his records will be as certain of individual immortality as some of the masterpieces of Bessie Smith or Armstrong. Those which are certain of it may owe as much to the planned glory of their solos as to his composing, e.g. the remarkable *Concerto for Cootie*, of which A. Hodeir has given a twenty-one-page analysis. Ellington's music is a process of discovery rather than a series of achievements. It is characteristic of the man that he has, throughout his career, taken up, developed, and improved his earlier composition so that pieces like his pioneer *East Saint Louis Toodle-oo* (1926) or *Black and Tan Fantasy* (1927) exist in a series of versions. His main weaknesses are an occasional tendency to sweetness and lushness—less marked in the informal sessions of the Ellington band's subunits—an early tendency to obvious 'jungle' effects, and indeed, an occasional pretentious vulgarity. However, his place in musical history is quite secure. 'He may be called a kind of Haydn of jazz, reconstructing all the old material of jazz in terms of the new sound demanded by his times, as

Haydn brought together elements from folk-song, comic opera, serenade, and street music and infused them into the budding symphony'.¹⁹

His most lasting gift to orchestral jazz is the discovery that bands can have a distinctive 'sound', i.e. orchestral colour, the palette being mixed by the composer-arranger from the colours of the individual musicians, carefully chosen for the purpose. The Ellington sound is quite unmistakable. It contains a mixture of New Orleans colours—especially the liquid creole clarinet which he alone of all band-leaders has used consistently to the present day—the carefully controlled blue sound of the brass, especially as played with mutes, as a well-mixed reed sound, originally based on the interplay of the baritone sax (another instrument largely confined to his band) and the alto. He has evolved this mixture from the personalities of his musicians, notably Bubber Miley and Cootie Williams, trumpeters; 'Tricky Sam' Nanton, trombone; Barney Bigard, clarinet; Harry Carney, baritone sax; and Johnny Hodges, alto sax; but the sound has survived their death or departure. Long after his pioneer work other bands discovered the virtues of a 'sound' as a trade-mark, and it has been widely exploited—as its best in bands like Lunceford's (*floruit* 1934–9) and Basie's (from 1936), at its most commercial in bands like the late Glenn Miller's.

The only other style of jazz which, in a much less conscious way, achieved a similar revolution was that of Kansas City.²⁰ Here, building not so much on New Orleans jazz and the elements of light metropolitan entertainment music, but on the professional individual jazz musician and the urbanized country blues, the second integration of the blues into the big-band style took place. This process was the very opposite of Ellington's: simplification rather than elaboration. Ensemble playing was reduced from the New Orleans counterpoint to simple repeated phrases, 'a rock-like foundation, allowing men to get a firm grip of the melody, the harmonies, and the rhythmic pattern before launching forth on the paths of their individual solos'. The main themes for these improvisations were pop songs, but above all the twelve-bar blues, whose chords and form everyone knew, and which allowed full freedom for development. The blues thus adapted was made the basis both of fast and of slow numbers—there is nothing in the blues form which imposes sadness—

and of ensemble work. There it was normally simplified down to the 'riff', the repeated melodic (blues) phrase played between and behind the solos, which is so characteristic of Kansas City's most successful product, the band of Count Basie.

Since it was evolved by players for their own convenience, this apparent regression to primitivism had three major musical advantages. First, it provided a flexible framework for big-band jazz which could be more widely adopted than the highly individual technique of Ellington, or perhaps even than the Redman formula; and it has been so adopted. Second, and more important, it allowed the big band to absorb directly the most flourishing and vigorous elements of black folk-music, the sung blues and the blues piano. Kansas City style is the only one which has used unspoiled blues singers as band vocalists and integral parts of the orchestra, e.g., James Rushing. Third, and most important, it allowed and even encouraged the utmost technical inventiveness and adventurousness among the players. For this reason Kansas City, more than any other style, became the incubator of the musical revolution in jazz, while at the same time its most radical innovators, like Parker, remained rooted in the blues. The style may be heard at its best in the early records of Count Basie's band: an unmistakable combination of brazen ensembles, solid rhythmic movement, and the solo blues.

The other brands of middle period jazz, bred mainly in Harlem and other large Northern ghettos, are less easy to reduce to type, unless it be the 'Harlem jump', 'the most constant rhythm developed in jazz',²¹ an urbanized, speeded-up beat, fusing the shouting rhythm of the city gospel congregation with the dance rhythm of the city ballroom.²² Often vulgar and showy, this 'Harlem music' (often played by non-New-Yorkers) tended to commercialism. Its vocalists are ballad—not blues—singers, its musicians play acrobatic tricks, and often build up rhythmic frenzy as a sales device. At its best, as in Chick Webb's (1926–39) and Lionel Hampton's bands (from 1934), it generates irresistible swing, though its technically superb musicians have, unless bandleaders, less individual scope than in Kansas City. However, musicians from these big bands also contributed to the jazz revolution. Except for its rhythm, 'Harlem' cannot be regarded as a 'style', but only as a show case and a meeting place for

talented and storming players. The New York tradition of solo (piano) music has followed a rather different line.

The common denominators of all these types of middle period jazz are tremendous technical virtuosity and swing which is an aspect of the same thing. There can be no argument about the increasing technical mastery of the players, though this must not be confused with increasing emotional expressiveness. Jazz, after all, is designed for maximum emotional expressiveness even with defective technical equipment, and though Louis Armstrong almost certainly could never have let off the fireworks of a Shavers or Gillespie on his trumpet, he has never had trouble in holding his own as an artist. Nevertheless, middle period jazz is designed for virtuosi, and largely created by the generation which first got the full technical possibilities out of their instruments. A similar technical sophistication took place in the drums. Ancient jazz (ragtime and New Orleans) had used a beat which still echoed European music, accenting the first and third beats of the bar. Its derivations—Dixieland and Chicago music, etc.—though still ‘two-beat’ jazz, tended to accent the off-beats. But with swing we enter the period of ‘four-beat’ jazz, the evenly accented bar, though there is still an instinctive tendency to stress the off-beats. The resulting rhythms, and rhythmical variations, are far subtler, and produce that indefinable swaying and living pulse which is called, for want of a better term, ‘swing’, but this, though as Hodeir observes essentially a rhythmic phenomenon, is not simply the affair of the rhythm section. In jazz every instrument has rhythmic as well as melodic functions, which is why ‘swing’ as a general phenomenon was hardly possible until a high average level of expertise had been reached. Novices, with a bit of feeling, can produce a passable imitation of a New Orleans brass band, or even a good Dixieland number; but not one of Lionel Hampton’s *Flyin’ Home*.

Though nobody predicted it at the time, we can now see that ‘modern’ jazz developed logically out of the middle period, partly as a prolongation of it, partly as a reaction against it.²³ Here we need be concerned only with the stylistic and musical aspects of this revolution in jazz, which is comparable to the revolutions of the twentieth century, in modern painting and classical music.[±] The jazz public has always been

divided, but before the modernist revolution normally only into ‘purists’ and ‘impurists’; that is into those who wish to preserve jazz from innovation because they believed it to lead to the ultimate horror of ‘commercialization’, and those who grudgingly recognized that not all innovation turned jazz into pop music. But modernism produced rival purity schools, though in its early stages the defenders of old-style ‘pure’ jazz purported to regard it as merely another commercial novelty gimmick. But modern jazz was far from aiming at mass appeal. On the contrary, it was the first jazz style which deliberately turned its face away from the ordinary public and created music for initiatives and experts only. The dangers which beset it were not those of degenerating into best-sellerdom.⁸ To this day its public remains considerably smaller than the public for pre-modern jazz.²⁴ Its temptation has been rather to slide over into something increasingly difficult to distinguish from classical art-music (and normally rather mediocre art-music at that).

The best way to explain its musical genesis is to say that musicians became bored and frustrated with the increasingly standardized and repetitive music of the big bands of the 1930s. (The original ‘bop’ revolutionaries almost all came from such big bands: Gillespie the trumpeter from Teddy Hill and Cab Calloway, Charlie Parker the alto player from Jay McShann, Kenny Clarke the drummer from a variety of bands, Charlie Christian from Goodman.) In spite of occasional big bop bands such as Gillespie’s, Herman’s, and Eckstine’s, modern jazz is essentially small-band music. Also it was essentially a reaction against entertaining a large or even a small lay public: it was musicians’ music. As such it naturally developed the virtuoso tendencies of middle period jazz to hitherto undreamed heights: Parker swung at 360 quarter-notes per minute, a thing hitherto believed impossible.²⁵ Clarke and his imitators tried to get their drums to play not only rhythm but ‘tunes’. Christian played his electric guitar as though it were a wind instrument, J. J. Johnson the trombone as though it were a trumpet. Indeed, whatever were think of their musical value, the sheer technical achievements of the moderns are breathtaking.

Similarly, the revolutionaries assumed a degree of musical sophistication which automatically made jazz into an élite activity. Bop

rhythm no longer indicated the beat, except perhaps by a legato agitation of the cymbal, a sort of rhythmic shiver through which the basic pulse might be glimpsed. Musicians were supposed to *assume* the beat, over which rhythmic complexities of almost African subtlety were played.[¶] They were expected to assume the melody, for the modernists no longer improvised on the simple theme—normally the pop ballad—but built a new theme out of the harmonies of the old and improvised on that, changing the harmonies slightly while doing so; or even elaborating the process. So far as they were concerned the really competent player ought to hear not merely the final theme and its often remote improvisation, but behind it the unplayed original theme: a duet between the actual music played and the ghost-music from which it was originally derived. (They often did not trouble even to indicate the title of the original theme: a competent musician was supposed to know or reconstruct it.) The whole thing was nearly as great a test of musical expertise as is the following of a Bach mirror fugue without the score. If a musician could do this, well and good. If he or the listener could not, to hell with him. It is small wonder that modern musicians have often shown a marked hankering for the intellectually more demanding constructions of classical music. For them, not Delius and Debussy, but Bach, Schoenberg, and Bartók.

These tendencies toward written architectural music were, however, later developments. The original ‘boppers’ were essentially improvisers in what we can now recognize as the old jazz tradition, however revolutionized. The jam session in which each artist built his own musical structure out of a series of solo choruses (based at bottom on the characteristic middle period musical device of the short repeated phrase, the riff) was their characteristic home. The musicians approached composition mainly in so far as fully worked-out solos were much prized and often repeated note for note. The bop innovations were hardly at all architectural and orchestral. The innovators revolutionized tonality and harmony but left the typical ‘bop’ piece architecturally as primitive as any old small-band piece: a theme (now generally stated in unison by the players), followed by variations, and perhaps restated. In some respects ‘bop’ retreated from the complex orchestral writing which Jelly-Roll Morton, Duke Ellington, Don Redman, Sy Oliver, and other composer-

arrangers had brought to jazz, though this retreat was only temporary. The modern school in time developed its own extremely able arrangers who normally carried on, roughly speaking, where Ellington left off: Tadd Dameron, John Lewis, Gil Evans.

The listener hearing the unfamiliar rhythmic complexities, the discordant and apparently disconnected solos, the free and continual key changes, the extraordinary use of the instruments, might well regard 'bop' as not only new but chaotic. But its fundamental structure was quite old-fashioned, as was its fundamental material: the blues or the pop song. Modern jazz has indeed concentrated mainly on the pop ballad, which it has for the first time turned into something like a musically usable form. It did so partly by using it, as we have seen, as a foundation on which a new counter-melody was built, partly by twisting it into adventurous shapes—adorned it with little chromatic figures or broken chords, modulating into surprising and remote keys, transforming its phrases rhythmically. But it also did so by, for the first time in jazz history, systematically breaking down the distinction between ballads and blues. For the blues lies at the heart of modern jazz as of all jazz. We recognize it, even in its transformation, in the greatest of all modern players, the tragic Charlie Parker who, as Finkelstein rightly says, 'is almost wholly a blues performer, as moving in his own way as Johnny Dodds in the old music'.²⁶

The early 'bop' music, was played in 1941–9 by its pioneers, and since then by some of the intransigent survivors, was a manifesto of revolt, though we can now see that the revolt moved within the frontiers of traditional craftsmen's jazz. Like so many other and similar artistic revolutions, its first stage was in some respects the most extreme. The mere existence of a new idiom makes it familiar: abstract painters in the 1950s are no longer revolutionaries—at least not against their predecessors—but traditionalists. The public, in turn, becomes accustomed to a new sound. The Gillespie-Parker-Monk records of 1946–8 which struck non-expert listeners at the time as wholly incomprehensible, are now accepted quite easily, if not always with enthusiasm. Phrases which ten years ago would have raised the hair of the ordinary listener, now occur as a matter of course in orchestras and

solos which make no claim to special modernism. Indeed, the revolutionaries have begun to suffer the last indignity of their kind. Their carefully elaborated complexities sound simple: just tunes, though tunes of a new kind—background noise for dreaming, chatting, flirting, even dancing. And modern jazz has to some extent domesticated itself, meeting the public halfway. Little by little it has reintroduced a less revolutionary type of melody: the Modern Jazz Quartet, or Miles Davis, the leading soloist of the latest phrase of jazz, play altogether gentler and more recognizable tunes, often no more demanding than those of Ellington. The ‘beat’, that essential of jazz, is perhaps easier to recognize today than it was in the adventurous forties. Some of this is due to regression, but some to a further evolution in jazz which has been called the ‘cool’ style of the fifties.

The ‘cool’ style is the most extreme point as yet reached in jazz evolution—the point which almost lies on the borders between jazz and ordinary art-music. The very name is a paradox. The jazz of the past was in its very nature *hot*—sensuous, emotional, physical—and ‘dirty’—instrumentally unorthodox because emotionally expressive (the word was used as a synonym for ‘hot’ in the 1920s). Even bop, as we have seen, retained this fundamental emotional heat and musical impurity. With all its insistence on musical bravura, what the boppers played was expressionist and not abstract music. Cool jazz aimed at a hitherto irrelevant ideal of musical purity, that is to say in many respects at the complete reversal of most jazz values. Cool players tried to make instruments sound like orthodox classical instruments, e.g. with a minimum of vibrato. Classical instruments, whose main recommendation for jazz was that they sounded smooth and had snob appeal, were for the first time used as more than oddities: flutes, oboes, flugelhorns. The main melodic pillar of jazz, the ‘horn’ or wind instrument, came under suspicion: small combinations consisting exclusively of such things as piano, bass, drums (perhaps supplemented with a vibraharp, an oboe-sounding sax, a well-bred clarinet, or even a bowed cello) became common sights. What Hodeir has called a ‘wispy’ sound became the ideal of many cool men. More than any of their predecessors, the cool players and arrangers also dreamed of an educated composed jazz capable of competing with the classics. Leading ‘progressive’ players like the pianist

Lennie Tristano, the saxophonist Lee Konitz, even took to theorizing, founding academies, and teaching, a thing hitherto unheard of in jazz, where musicians said what they had to say in notes and not words, and learned what they had to learn by apprenticeship, like Renaissance painters. These are the players and composers who claim to be inspired by Johann Sebastian Bach and eighteenth-century classicism—an admirable model, but a very surprising one. Intellectualized and formalized jazz such as this, drained of much of its old-fashioned red blood, naturally appealed particularly strongly to young white players who are much better able to compete with black ones on territory which is, after all, close to the one in which all white musicians have been brought up. Cool jazz therefore attracted an abnormally large number of young white recruits, especially in California, where Los Angeles became the headquarters of a ‘West Coast school’.

The cool players did not wish to abandon jazz, though many critics feel that the work of some of them—say of Dave Brubeck in California and the Tristano group in New York—often crosses the border from jazz into jazz-tinged art-music. Nor, in fact, do the best of them eliminate genuine and powerful emotion, though it tends to be eerie, sleepwalking, dreamlike stuff as in the finest player of the school, the trumpeter Miles Davis. They maintain their pride in the jazz tradition, and especially the blues (even when least capable of playing it). They derive directly from previous styles—notably via bop from the middle period—by the usual link of jazz evolution, craft virtuosity. For just because it was so much harder to play hot by means of a ‘pure’, spare, and sober technique, players had long tried to do so. Benny Carter on sax and clarinet, Teddy Wilson on piano, had long ‘underplayed’ their attacks, or substituted delicacy for drive. One of the most formative musicians of the thirties, Lester Young, tenor sax in Count Basie’s band, had demonstrated that it was possible to produce remarkable jazz while avoiding virtually all the characteristics of the ‘hot’ sound, mainly by means of a quite extraordinary suppleness, the product of muscular relaxation.²⁷ Young’s ‘cool’ sound was one of the components of the bop revolution; indeed, he is commonly regarded as its most important single precursor. But whereas the boppers retained hot jazz while also taking over the new cool

technique, their successors developed coolness, purity, relaxation into an exclusive system. In doing so they brought jazz to the very verge of its possibilities as jazz.

It would be logical to argue that the future evolution of modern jazz must take it over that border into art-music; or rather over the border into that territory where it disintegrates as jazz, while art-musicians absorb its various fragments into their own music as nineteenth-century nationalist composers absorbed the elements of their peoples' music into the general body of classical music. But this will not necessarily occur. For though modern jazz has tried, more and more systematically, to escape from the musical limitations of the older jazz—or to react against them—its social situation has so far continued to link it to its old and unreconstructed musical kindred. Some jazz may well go permanently over the border, just as one sort of black spiritual has gone permanently into the concert hall. But just as gospel music in the Mount Tabor African Strict Baptist Tabernacle continues a vigorous life quite independent of Miss Marian Anderson's kind of spirituals (though not unaffected by musical developments), so jazz, including much modern jazz, is likely to continue even if some versions of it pass beyond its frontiers. Indeed, the exclusive concentration on coolness led to a stylistic reaction in the later fifties. Modern players who had never stopped 'blowing out', pioneers of the original bop era who had been in eclipse, such as the pianist-composer Thelonious Monk, came into their own. A succession of powerful saxophonists sounding anything but thin and wispy, captured the fancy of the *avant-garde*: Sonny Rollins, John Coltrane, Ornette Coleman, and the more widely popular Cannonball Adderley. The reaction against coolness, the search for heat and emotion, took musicians back to those obvious sources of musical passion, blues and gospel song, and even some way towards the swinging music of the thirties, which was beginning to enjoy more popularity among the advanced than it had for many years. Indeed, while the neo-hot jazz of 1960 (variously named 'funky', 'hard-bop', or 'soul-music') remained solidly modern, and sometimes highly experimental, its very search for heat and roots made it the first 'traditional' style of modern jazz. Its implicit slogans were backward-looking: back to Parker, back to blues

and gospel, back even to the central tradition of big-band jazz. The reasons for this reaction were of course ideological as well as musical.

Whether this return to the main tradition of jazz is permanent or not, it is too early to say. It may well be that this latest phase (1960) will once again lead to a counter-movement, and that modern jazz will continue as an interplay between the hot and cool tendencies. But we do not know.

One thing is clear. So long as jazz is jazz it will always be anchored to some sort of stylistic pattern by the need to be a music for dancing. I recall the wise remarks of Mr Gus Johnson, a Kansas City drummer practised in the best of all jazz schools, Count Basie's band. 'They used to say bop was here for all time', he said. 'I didn't see it that way. It was something new: that's good naturally. But you take a line of girls. They have to dance, and if they have to dance they have to hear the beat, like this'—and Mr Johnson tapped it out, rock-firm and swinging, with his fingers. 'Now that beat has got to be there all the time, or else nobody can dance to it.' For the past dozen years or so a great deal of jazz has not been played for dancing, but for listening, often in concert halls and recital rooms. But so long as jazz is not exclusively a recital music; that is, so long as it is not played for an exclusively expert or snob audience, so long as it is played in dance halls, theatres, and clubs as well as in halls, some listeners will also want to dance to it, if only in the aisles. And so long as the demand for jazz to dance to continues, some jazz of all styles—old, middle period, or modern—will adapt itself to this demand. It will not be hard either; for jazz is a music made to get people's limbs moving, whatever other and higher achievements it also has to its credit.

Notes

1. Sleeve note to Jazz Messengers: *Hard Bop* (Philips BBL 7220).
2. Dark Road, on *Brownie McGhee and Sonny Terry* (Topic 12T29).
3. E. Borneman, Boogie Woogie, in *Just Jazz I*, p. 29.
4. Winthrop Sargeant, *Jazz, Hot and Hybrid* (New York 1946), discusses this problem at length, with many musical illustrations.
5. No adequate history as yet exists, but see Paul Oliver, *Blues Fell This Morning* (1960), Samuel B. Charters, *The Country Blues* (1960), and monographs in the specialist periodicals and on LP sleeves.

6. For the classic blues singers, Francis Newton [Eric Hobsbawm] in *The Decca Book of Jazz* (1958). For Bessie Smith, Paul Oliver, *Bessie Smith* (1960), George Hoefer in Hentoff and Shapiro (eds.), *The Jazz Makers* (1958), George Avakian in Martin B. Williams (ed.), *The Art of Jazz* (1960).

7. C. E. Smith in *The Jazz Makers* and the artist's unreliable autobiography (with W. Dufty), *Lady Sings the Blues*. A good critical study by Glenn Coulter in *The Art of Jazz*.

8. Stearns, 7.

9. R. Blesh and H. Janis. *They All Played Ragtime* (1958) for history; Guy Waterman in *The Art of Jazz* and in Hentoff and McCarthy (eds.), *Jazz* (1960), for more detailed technical discussion.

10. Rudi Blesh, *Shining Trumpets*, and Rex Harris, *Jazz*, for general accounts, W. C. Allen and B. Rust, *King Oliver* (1958), H. O. Brunn, *The Story of the Original Dixieland Jazz Band* (1960), for individual groups, Martin B. Williams, *King Oliver* (1960), for a critical appreciation.

11. Stearns, 157.

12. Alan Lomax, *Mr Jelly-Roll* (1950), Orrin Keepnews in *The Jazz Makers*, for life and times; William Russell in *The Art of Jazz*, Martin Williams in Hentoff and McCarthy, *op. cit.*, for critical discussion.

13. M. Mezzrow and B. Wolfe, *Really the Blues* (London 1957), Appendix 1; Borneman, *A Critic Looks at Jazz*; C. Fox, *Chicago Jazz, A Reassessment* (*Jazz Monthly*, August 1955); John Steiner in Hentoff and McCarthy, *op. cit.*

14. Shapiro and Hentoff, *Jazz Makers*, 246.

15. S. Finkelstein, *Jazz, A People's Music* (New York 1948), 184.

16. John S. Wilson in *The Jazz Makers*.

17. P. Gammond (ed.), *Duke Ellington, His Life and Music* (1958), Barry Ulanov, *Duke Ellington* (New York 1946), Gunther Schuller in Hentoff and McCarthy, *op. cit.*

18. Finkelstein, 197. Throughout this chapter I have greatly relied on this first-rate book.

19. Finkelstein, 193.

20. R. Horricks, *Count Basie* (1957), Franklin Driggs in Hentoff and McCarthy, *op. cit.*

21. J. Berendt, *Das Jazzbuch* (Frankfurt/Hamburg 1953), 80.

22. There is no adequate discussion of the Harlem style, but see Charles Fox in *The Decca Book of Jazz* (1958) and Hsiao Wen Shih in Hentoff and McCarthy, *op. cit.*

23. The bibliography of modern jazz is large. Leonard Feather, *Jazz* (Trend Books, Los Angeles 1959), and A. Morgan and R. Horricks, *Modern Jazz* (1956), are general surveys. R. Horricks (ed.), *These Jazzmen of Our Time* (1959), Michael James, *Ten Modern Jazzmen* (1960), discuss individual musicians. For criticism see *The Art of Jazz*, Hentoff and McCarthy, but especially A. Hodeir, *Jazz, Its Evolution and Essence* (1956).

24. *Arts* (Paris), 23–29 April 1958, 9, for France. Personal information from M. Charles Delaunay tends to confirm this. It is certainly also the case in Britain, but not in the U.S.A. However, for the peculiarities of the jazz public there see below, Chapter 12.

25. Hodeir, 198.

26. Finkelstein 227. My account of the 'modern' transformation of the ballad is also based on this book.

27. See N. Hentoff, Lester Young in *The Jazz Makers*.

* Experts on New Orleans music will observe that this rough sketch greatly over-simplifies a long musical evolution, even within primitive New Orleans jazz, but this is not the place for greater detail.

- † I owe this point, as indeed much else in this and the next chapter, to Charles Fox.
- ± Other aspects of this revolution are discussed in Chapters 3, 9, 10.
- § Though it has produced a few artists whose marked individuality allows them to outsell many ostensibly more ‘popular’ performers, notably Miles Davis.
- ¶ Insofar as the beat was actually articulated, it might shift from place to place, from instrument to instrument, though it has tended to settle with the bass.